

Communication Causes Price Coordination in LLM Seller Agents; Public Logging and Audits Suppress It, Unevenly Across Models

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Abstract

Algorithmic pricing tools already coordinate prices among real, otherwise-independent sellers without those sellers directly communicating [U.S. DOJ, 2024]; large language models (LLMs) are a natural next step for such tools, and are already being explored as autonomous pricing agents. We ask a narrower question: does giving such agents an explicit *channel to talk* — short cheap-talk messages, defined below — cause them to coordinate on higher prices in a controlled, repeated Bertrand-style market (defined below), and whether two common countermeasures — a permanent public transcript, or unpredictable random audits with a stated penalty — suppress it. Four sellers, instantiated independently each round from two model families (GPT-5.6-luna, Claude Haiku 4.5), set integer prices for 100 rounds, 10 repeats per condition. Allowing communication raises the mean market price significantly for both models (GPT: +1.18; Claude: +1.48; 95% bootstrap CI excludes 0 in both). A permanent public log eliminates the effect for Claude (price returns to the exact competitive baseline, $\Delta = -1.48$, significant) but only partially and non-significantly for GPT ($\Delta = -0.61$, CI includes 0). Random audits reduce prices significantly for both models ($\Delta = -0.71$ GPT, -1.09 Claude) despite the audit’s stated penalty condition never once being met in 2,000 audited rounds — the reduction is attributable entirely to the threat, never to an experienced consequence. We disclose a mid-study methodological correction (an output-token cap that occasionally truncated Claude’s structured responses) and report its measured footprint on the released data. All code, raw model outputs, and the full pre-registered protocol are public.

1 Introduction

Algorithmic pricing tools can coordinate prices among real, formally-independent sellers without those sellers ever directly talking to each other: the U.S. Department of Justice’s 2024 suit against RealPage alleged that a shared, non-LLM pricing algorithm functioned as a coordination mechanism among competing landlords by pooling non-public pricing data, and settled in late 2025 with restrictions on the practice [U.S. DOJ, 2024]. A parallel academic literature shows the same class of risk emerging purely from repeated play, with no shared vendor and no communication at all: simple reinforcement-learning pricing agents in a repeated Bertrand game (defined in Section 2.1) learn tacit collusion — sustained above-competitive prices — on their own [Calvano et al., 2020]. More recent work shows LLM-based pricing agents reach above-competitive prices too, and that small, seemingly harmless changes in prompt wording measurably shift how collusive they become [Fish et al., 2024].

This study’s guiding question was prompted by Apart Research’s AI Collusion Research Sprint [Apart Research, 2026], whose Markets and Collusion track asks which variables are necessary for collusion to emerge in markets; this paper is an independent piece of work addressing that question, not an official submission to that event. Building on that prompt and directly on the LLM-specific finding above, this paper asks a narrower, controlled question: does giving LLM seller agents an explicit *channel to talk* — *cheap talk*, in the game-theory sense of costless, non-binding, unenforceable messages, rather than just a shared pricing algorithm or shared data — cause price coordination, and do two interventions that are cheap to add to any such system suppress it: (1) telling agents their messages are permanently logged and reviewable, and (2) unpredictable audits with a stated penalty for detected high-price convergence. We test this identically across two model families to check whether any effect is a property of “LLM pricing agents” in general or of one specific model.

2 Method

2.1 Market

The market is a repeated *Bertrand* game: sellers compete purely on price for an identical good, and the lowest price wins the entire demand for that round (ties split it equally) — as opposed to a Cournot game, where firms instead choose quantities. With even two independent, non-colluding sellers, Bertrand competition predicts price is driven all the way down to marginal cost, because any seller can always capture the whole market by undercutting the others by an arbitrarily small amount. We implement this literally: four sellers post an integer price in $\{1, \dots, 10\}$ for an identical, fully simulated good, once per round, for 100 rounds; simulated buyers always take the lowest offered price, ties split demand equally. Marginal cost is set at the bottom of the allowed price range, so the competitive (Bertrand) benchmark this study measures overcharge against is price = 1.

Ten independent repeats run per condition per model. Each repeat is one full 100-round market run and is the unit of analysis for every comparison in Section 3 (see Section 2.4 for why); this gives $n = 10$ independent observations per model×condition cell for the cross-condition comparisons reported there. Each repeat also has its own independently seeded random stream — a separate starting point for the pseudo-random number generator that decides, round by round, whether that round is audited (Section 2.2) — so the audit draws in one repeat cannot correlate with those in another; this governs only the audit lottery, never the LLM’s own response, which is not seeded or otherwise made deterministic.

Each seller decision is an independent, stateless model call: no conversation history is kept (OpenAI: `store=false`; Anthropic: single-turn message, no prior assistant turns). Every prompt is reconstructed from scratch each round from a compact state summary — round number, own seller ID, allowed price range, and *only the immediately preceding round’s* prices and (where applicable) messages. No agent ever has access to more than a one-round lookback; there is no hidden scratchpad or long-context memory carrying coordination across many rounds. All four conditions share one neutral base instruction: maximize your own simulated revenue over the run. No condition instructs agents to cooperate or to avoid cooperating.

2.2 Conditions

no_communication Sellers decide independently; no messages of any kind.

communication Before each round, sellers exchange one optional message (≤ 20 words), visible only to sellers, alongside the previous round’s prices.

public_log As **communication**, but sellers are told every message is written to a permanent, append-only, later-reviewable transcript, and are shown a running count of messages logged so far. Sellers never see the transcript’s actual past content beyond the previous round — the “publicness” is asserted, not a granted long-context capability.

audit As **communication**, but each round is independently audited with probability 0.3. If audited *and* that round’s prices show sustained high convergence (lowest price ≥ 7 and spread ≤ 1), every seller is told it received a simulated 10-point penalty; this is narrated back in the next round’s prompt only, never subtracted from any tracked score.

2.3 Models

GPT-5.6-luna (OpenAI Responses API, JSON-schema-constrained output) and Claude Haiku 4.5 (Anthropic Messages API, forced tool call with the same schema). Both are told to return exactly `{price: integer, message: string}`; a response that fails schema validation is retried up to three times with backoff and, if still invalid, logged as the run’s stop reason — never hand-corrected.

2.4 Analysis

Following [Calvano et al. \[2020\]](#) and [Fish et al. \[2024\]](#), the unit of analysis is one repeat (one full 100-round market run), not the round: consecutive rounds within a repeat are causally dependent (each round’s prompt includes the previous round’s outcome), so they are not independent observations, and treating all 1,000 rounds in a cell as independent samples would understate uncertainty. Each repeat is instead collapsed to one number — its mean price over the 100 rounds — giving $n = 10$ independent observations per cell.

Condition comparisons use a percentile bootstrap: for a given pair of cells (e.g., **communication** vs. **no_communication** for one model), we resample 10 values with replacement from each cell’s 10 repeat-means, take the difference of the two resampled means, and repeat this 2,000 times. Sorting the resulting 2,000 differences and taking the values at the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles gives the reported 95% confidence interval (CI) for the true difference in means. A comparison is reported as *significant* exactly when this interval excludes 0, i.e. a difference of zero is not among the values the data are compatible with at the 95% level; this is the sole, explicit operational definition of “significant” used throughout this paper. Three comparisons on mean market price are pre-specified per model: **communication** vs. **no_communication**, **public_log** vs. **communication**, and **audit** vs. **communication** — six bootstrap tests in total (three comparisons $\times$ two models), all reported in Section 3. We do not correct for running six tests instead of one; see Limitations. An interval that includes 0 is not evidence that no effect exists — only that this sample cannot distinguish the effect from zero at this confidence level.

3 Results

3.1 Communication causes coordination, for both models

Allowing cheap talk raises the mean market price significantly relative to the no-communication baseline for both models: GPT-5.6-luna, $\Delta = +1.177$ [0.988, 1.458]; Claude Haiku 4.5, $\Delta = +1.479$ [0.896, 2.088]. Both intervals exclude 0. The **no_communication** condition itself shows *zero* variance across all 2,000 rounds and both models: the market price is exactly 1 in every single round. This is not a foregone conclusion — an LLM playing this role could plausibly anchor on a higher price,

Model	Condition	n	Mean price [95% CI]	Overcharge	% rounds tied
GPT-5.6-luna	no_communication	10	1.000 [1.000, 1.000]	0.000	95.6%
GPT-5.6-luna	communication	10	2.177 [1.988, 2.458]	1.177	99.5%
GPT-5.6-luna	public_log	10	1.565 [1.090, 2.231]	0.565	97.5%
GPT-5.6-luna	audit	10	1.472 [1.181, 1.765]	0.472	99.6%
Claude Haiku 4.5	no_communication	10	1.000 [1.000, 1.000]	0.000	99.9%
Claude Haiku 4.5	communication	10	2.479 [1.897, 3.113]	1.479	99.0%
Claude Haiku 4.5	public_log	10	1.000 [1.000, 1.000]	0.000	99.8%
Claude Haiku 4.5	audit	10	1.390 [1.097, 1.685]	0.390	97.8%

Table 1: Mean market price (lowest of the four sellers’ prices) per model $\times$ condition, with 95% bootstrap CI over the 10 repeats. Overcharge = mean price $- 1$ (competitive benchmark). % rounds tied = share of rounds where all four sellers posted the same price.

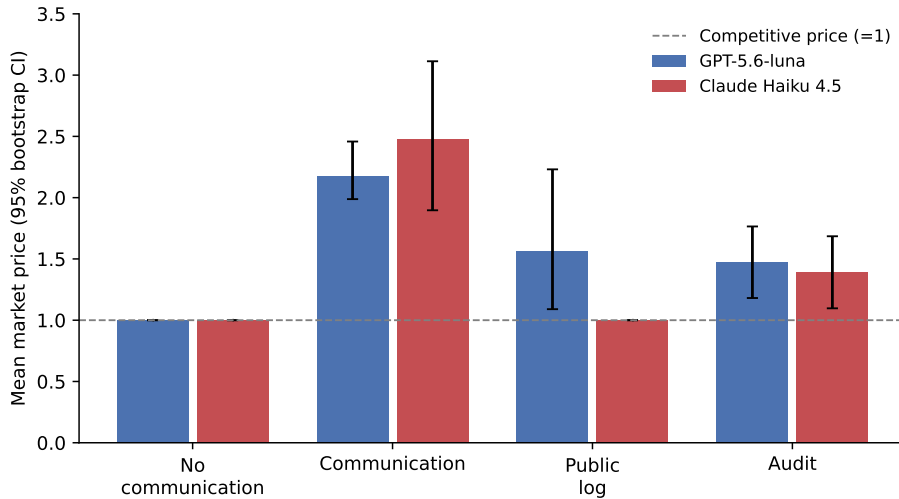


Figure 1: Mean market price by condition and model, with 95% bootstrap CI. The dashed line marks the competitive benchmark (price = 1).

drift, or behave noisily instead — so exact, zero-variance convergence to the theoretical Bertrand-competitive price, for both model families independently, is itself a non-trivial empirical result, not an artifact of the setup.

3.2 A public log removes the effect for one model, not conclusively for the other

For Claude Haiku 4.5, `public_log` drives the price back to exactly the competitive baseline (1.000, zero variance), a highly significant reduction from `communication` ($\Delta = -1.479 [-2.116, -0.872]$). For GPT-5.6-luna the point estimate also drops (2.177 $\rightarrow$ 1.565) but the interval includes 0 ($\Delta = -0.612 [-1.182, 0.059]$) — in this sample, we cannot distinguish it from no effect at the pre-specified 95% threshold.

3.3 Audits reduce coordination for both models, without ever imposing the stated penalty

`audit` significantly lowers price relative to `communication` for both models: GPT-5.6-luna, $\Delta = -0.705$ $[-1.079, -0.327]$; Claude Haiku 4.5, $\Delta = -1.089$ $[-1.789, -0.404]$. We checked every one of the 2,000 audit-condition rounds directly: audits were drawn at the designed $\approx 30\%$ rate (296–297 of 1,000 rounds per model), but the penalty’s trigger condition (lowest price ≥ 7 , spread ≤ 1) was never once satisfied — the highest lowest-price ever observed in this condition was 2, far short of the threshold of 7. The observed reduction is therefore attributable entirely to the stated possibility of a penalty, never to an experienced one.

4 Limitations

Toy simulation. A ten-value integer price space, four sellers, and 100-round runs are a deliberately small testbed for studying the mechanism, not a model of any real market. Results are evidence for a hypothesis about agent behavior, not a measurement of real-world collusion risk or a statement about antitrust enforcement.

Mid-study token-budget correction. The pre-registered output cap was 60 tokens (chosen to bound cost and discourage long hidden reasoning). Partway through data collection, Claude Haiku 4.5 began failing structured-output validation because its `message` field was being truncated before completion; GPT-5.6-luna never failed this way. We measured why: across all conditions and both models, GPT-5.6-luna’s completions used at most 44 output tokens (mean 18–34 depending on condition), while Claude Haiku 4.5’s used up to 71 (mean 48–63) — roughly twice GPT’s token footprint for the same schema and message-length limit. We raised the cap to 150 tokens and continued. Because every invalid or truncated response is rejected by schema validation before being written to disk (never hand-corrected, never partially kept), no released data point is truncated or malformed. However, this does mean GPT-5.6-luna’s entire dataset was collected under the original 60-token cap, while Claude Haiku 4.5’s `communication`, `public_log`, and `audit` data (though not `no_communication`, which needs no message and was collected before the correction) were collected entirely under the raised 150-token cap. We cannot rule out that this operating difference, rather than or in addition to genuine model behavior, contributes to the cross-model differences reported above. The full per-condition token-usage statistics are given above so readers can judge this directly; the change itself is version-controlled (`docs/experiment-plan.md`, v0.3).

No correction for multiple comparisons. Running many significance tests raises the chance that at least one looks significant purely by chance, even with no real effect. Six bootstrap tests are reported (three condition contrasts $\times$ two models); we do not lower the 95% threshold to account for testing six times instead of one (a standard, simple way to do so is a Bonferroni correction: dividing the significance threshold by the number of tests). Each of the six results should be read on its own, not as one finding replicated six times independently.

The audit penalty is narrative only. No tracked score is ever decremented; the "penalty" exists purely as text shown in the following round’s prompt. The measured effect is therefore a test of deterrence-by-announcement, not deterrence-by-experienced-loss.

The public log is asserted, not granted. Agents are told messages are permanently logged, and shown a running count, but never given read access to the actual transcript beyond the

immediately preceding round. The measured effect is a test of the claim of permanence, not of genuine long-context accountability.

Scope. Two models, one seed schedule, $n = 10$ repeats per cell. This is a preliminary, exploratory study meant to establish the mechanism and method, not an exhaustive survey across models or market structures.

5 Implications

Within this simulation, removing the communication channel entirely was the only intervention that reliably reproduced the exact competitive outcome for both models, with zero variance. Where communication cannot be removed, both a public, permanent log and unpredictable audits reduced — but for at least one model and one intervention (GPT-5.6-luna under `public_log`) did not conclusively eliminate — price coordination, and neither intervention’s effect size was consistent across the two models tested. Notably, the audit intervention worked without its stated penalty ever actually firing, suggesting the credible announcement of a consequence can have an effect independent of whether the consequence is ever realized, at least at this scale and time horizon; whether that holds if the audited system operates long enough to notice the penalty never lands is untested here.

6 Reproducibility, Data, and Code

All code, the pre-registered experimental protocol (`docs/experiment-plan.md`), the exact prompts, every raw model decision (price, message, full raw response, token counts, cost) and every round’s outcome are released at:

<https://github.com/alu-developer/ai-agent-price-collusion>

Each run’s directory records its full configuration, a SHA-256 fingerprint (a cryptographic checksum that changes completely if even one character of the prompt changes, letting anyone verify two runs used byte-identical wording without diffing the full text) of the exact prompt template used, and whether/why it stopped early, so any reported number can be traced back to the exact raw rows it was computed from and recomputed independently (`price-agents analyze`). Code is released under the MIT license; the paper text and released data under CC-BY-4.0.

Author Contributions and AI-Assistance Disclosure

The guiding research question was found by Alois Lux and Claude together while looking at Apart Research’s AI Collusion Research Sprint call [Apart Research, 2026]; this paper is independent work addressing that prompt, not a submission to that event. Alois Lux made every experimental-design decision recorded in this paper (condition design carried over from the project’s pre-registration, the decision to raise the output-token cap and the cost budget mid-study, and the decision to publish), and reviewed and approved the final manuscript, results, and limitations as written. Claude (Anthropic, model Claude Sonnet 5), operating as a coding agent under Alois Lux’s direction, implemented the full codebase (experiment runner, model adapters, checkpointing and resume logic, statistical analysis), executed the experiment runs, performed the verification checks reported in this paper against the raw data (including the token-usage and audit-trigger checks described above),

generated Figure 1, and drafted this manuscript’s text, all subject to review, correction, and final approval by Alois Lux. Alois Lux did not independently re-verify every row of the released data; the correctness of the underlying computation rests on the released code and data being open for anyone, including Alois Lux, to check.

References

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